5

What Participatory Democrats Expect

'Success'

The outcome condition I explain is *citizen control* of collective decisions in PB (ccpb): the ultimate aim is to draw on a range of cases to explain the conditions under which citizen control of budget spending decisions is effectively established. This is where democratic participation and authority over budget decisions by 'ordinary people' becomes a regular expectation. Citizen control of budgetary decision-making is understood to take place when both agenda-setting and decision-making power in budget decisions is directed by, and open to, all citizens.

This can, of course, happen to a matter of degree – different factors can contribute to check decision-making and/or agenda-setting power. On the surface these powers are easy to observe and measure by looking at the rules of the process – for example, citizen control may be affected by whether de jure vetoes for citizen groups are in place. I was interested in measuring de facto citizen control, however. This meant collecting and synthesizing a variety of qualitative information that signalled different degrees of power, including observations of what level of co-optation took place in both setting agendas and making final decisions. Wampler shows, for instance, that despite the strong rhetoric of co-governance in Santo André, government officials and the mayor's office benefited in controlling the process by having far more access to important information and the apparatus of the state. Despite a de jure veto for both sides according to the rules, the only de facto veto was exercised by the administration (2007a: 178–9). Also, decisions need to be made with the knowledge that they will be

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accounted for and enforced. Some system of monitoring of outcomes was more or less a constant rather than a variable across cases but, in reality, implementation of projects differs across cases. In several cases citizen control is lost in administrative prohibitions. While perfect implementation is far from expected, even for political dictators, administrators can provide numerous reasons for non-implementation, and many are tinged with a sense that power asymmetries lie unaffected (Baiocchi and Ganuza, 2016).

Chapters 2 and 3 discussed some of the variety of outcomes researchers have tried to explain, and how some have differentially interpreted 'success' for participatory innovations. Policymakers, activists, participants and citizens are all desperate to know what makes political participation 'successful'. In politics, success and failure are always contested concepts. While most actors have some vague common notions of what makes PB successful, they emphasize different elements according to their going concerns.

Many scholars have been attracted to PB to help them try to understand its potential to achieve a number of outcomes, for example, the redistribution of wealth, education or health or bureaucratic efficiencies and political gains. While many of these goals may be complementary or even conditional on one another, this study is primarily concerned with PB as a democratic innovation that effectively institutionalizes democratic participation. The aim is to explain how ownership of budget decisions by masses of 'ordinary people' becomes a convention, and what leads to that success being negated if PB becomes a disenchanting process. The key research question outlined in the first breath is 'When and how do ordinary citizens gain substantial control over important collective decisions?'

I should briefly address some alternative potential conceptualizations of success in participatory programmes to explain their relation to my focus on citizen control of collective decisions. Many have conceived success in terms of a reduction in clientelist or corrupt practices: for some, PB can be seen primarily as having been introduced in Brazil as a specific measure whose aim was to reduce patronage and shady practices in allocation of capital spending in a city. An inherited culture of clientelism has plagued (and as national scandals have revealed, continues to plague) Brazilian politics. In this context PB can be seen as emblematic of the institutional turn taken by civil society and social movements striking back against military authoritarianism in the late 1970s and 1980s (see Wampler and Avritzer, 2004: 292). Abers (1998) paints a very vivid picture of the ways in which the big patrons in some of Porto Alegre's neighbourhoods were supplanted by

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cooperation among citizens through the first years of PB. Certainly PB varied in its successes in this regard, with the sustained presence of electoral ward bosses at meetings in some participatory budgets (Wampler, 2007a: 250). The prevalence of a patron's supporters who do not participate regularly would 'swell' assemblies to game outcomes in places (Abers, 1998). In talking to politicians about PB, I find this fear of 'capture' of fora to be the most prominent in scepticism about PB, particularly where civil society is less vibrant. Clientelism is not unique to Brazilian politics, and even in traditionally 'non-clientelist' systems, citizens and activists have called for more transparency and control over budget spending. A number of newer cases of PB cite responses to some fiscal management scandals as an influence in their initiation, especially in the fallout from the global economic contractions of recent years. If many of these programmes consider fighting corruption and making budgets transparent a key aim of PB, perhaps an outcome we should be most interested in testing requires some measure of a reduction in corruption indicators and patronage.

Nevertheless, PB is more than just a tool for budget transparency and openness. Budget regulation and transparency has been shown to be successful in reducing incentives for politicians to benefit from information asymmetry in traditional representative political systems (Benito and Bastida, 2009). PB sets a somewhat higher standard than this. Abers (1998) shows that as citizens over time began to deliberate with one another, they moved from attending PB meetings in order to campaign for narrow localized goals, to organizing collectively to gain more control over shared concerns. Reductions in clientelism may be a symptom of, as well as a good indicator for, successful PB, but for many, PB aims not just for a better relationship between decision-makers and those affected by decisions, but also for a fundamental change in the nature of who decisions are made by and for.

Other researchers and designers of PB focus on learning and educational outcomes. Much participatory and deliberative governance has affinities with educational settings and is rooted in work of schools of democracy theorists such as John Dewey (see Dewey, 2012). There has been an increasing focus on PB in schools more recently (Dias et al, 2018). One lauded outcome of PB that was jumped on by the World Bank and others seeking to diffuse the process has been its apparent ability to increase the 'budget literacy' of ordinary citizens. Budgets, despite being arguably the legislative act with most effect on an average citizen's day-to-day life, have traditionally been less open to considered debate among ordinary citizens than, for example, moral or constitutional issues. Budgets are often referred to as the 'black box'

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of government – best understood and administered by economists, planners, other technocrats and, perhaps only if necessary, professional politicians. A level of budget literacy among members of an active society can be an important component of good governance. By familiarizing themselves with the jargon and technical procedures of public budgeting, citizens can come to understand the constraints and procedures faced in political decision-making with limited resources. The theory is that such knowledge can lead them to make more rational demands from the state. Similarly, when citizens can communicate with technocrats in a language they both recognize, those operating within the black box can overcome information deficits in regard to citizens' needs and wants. They may find that citizens' priorities are different to what they believed they were, as documented in Porto Alegre (Abers, 2000), or they may gain information to be able to anticipate policy failures before they are implemented.

Improved information flows through 'good governance' is often an aim of PB, and one that is desirable of any arrangement involving collective decision-making, but it only captures some of what PB sets out to achieve. Improvements in cognition, individual or collective, seen in adaptive preferences and public reason-giving are only one good that democratic theorists hope for from participation in democratic politics (Talpin, 2011: 15; see also Smith, 2009). Practices of making public arguments and changing preferences can be important in their own right, but can be far more powerful as part of a broader process of taking control of making collective decisions and even collectively reshaping the institutions of governance (see Talpin, 2011; see also Pateman, 1970).

Taking a step back from issues of implementation, those influenced by deliberation theory are often more interested in representation or inclusion of 'presence' and 'voice' of those normally excluded in fora as an outcome of participatory design. Critiques of the inclusion concept within democratic theory specify in particular the need to be sensitive to important affected and underrepresented constituencies (Phillips, 1995; Young, 2000). We might want to evaluate the success of PB by simply looking at the diversity and representativeness of participants or discourses that are brought to the fore by the process. If unequal representation remains democracy's unresolved dilemma (Lijphart, 1997), then a political process that achieves more equal representation involving more than just the 'usual suspects' is a successful one. To examine the extent to which PB achieves such inclusion might require a measurement of some shared sense of identity that results from the process. Such analyses have mainly focused on specific institutions designed for more narrow purposes (for example, mini-publics) than

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participatory budgets. And even where these outcomes have been measured, the focus tends to be on the collection of individual actions rather than collective outcomes as a whole (see, for example, Bryan, 2004; Steiner et al, 2004; Fishkin, 2009; Niemeyer, 2011), although this may change with the trend to greater institutionalization of mini-publics within political systems (Farrell et al, 2019). Following Smith (2009), different institutions may achieve these goods in different ways, but they are only elements of successful democratic innovation, which also requires degrees of popular control over decisions, as well as accountability and effective implementation of such decisions.

Finally, PB has not only interested those whose primary concern is the minutiae of democratic procedures or those who intrinsically value a vibrancy of political participation. Its popularity has often been driven by its promise of a more just distribution of collective resources. Many consider the aim of PB to be more concrete redistribution of wealth or other material goods to those who do not normally have it. This is the logic behind the 'inversion of priorities' rhetoric and devices included in PB. In the context of exceptionally rapid urbanization and consequential plethora of unplanned settlements, PB was very much envisioned as an instrument for inverting priorities to benefit the poor. Capital infrastructure spending was refocused away from the 'haves' in gentrified suburbs and gated communities to the 'have-nots' in the favelas or shantytowns. It is no accident that Porto Alegre became a beacon for the alter-globalization movement, the cradle for the World Social Forum, and a 'Mecca of the Left'. In Europe, too, early cases were initiated by leftist and often Communist parties. As Julien Talpin explains, these parties, reeling from the ideological consequences of the fall of the Soviet empire, saw in participatory democracy a modern idea with which to build a new positive identity and reconnect with their constituents (2011: 35). Some recent studies have compared PB and non-PB cities to show that participatory budgets in general led to improvements in the circumstances of vulnerable citizens over time (Touchton and Wampler, 2013; Gonçalves, 2014).

The level of redistribution and transformative justice achieved could certainly be expected to vary across cases of PB where it is implemented. There may be many variables that could explain these outcomes worthy of an empirical test. For example, the motives of initiators may differ – as PB has diffused, it has been accepted and implemented by parties and actors from different political backgrounds. In the UK a strong localism agenda among the Conservatives saw PB amalgamated into the new coalition government's 'Big Society' initiative in 2010; however, the overall initiative was ill received and

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PB was marginalized and allowed to fall off central government's policy map. In Brazil many non-PT and even non-Leftist parties may have taken up PB in order to try and mimic the electoral rewards it saw the PT acquiring. However, Spada shows that despite abandonment of PB by PT parties after Lula's presidential victory, the number of non-PT-led participatory budgets remained stable at best (2017).

I do not attempt to explain redistributive outcomes directly. Even if the creators of PB had the ultimate goal of redistributing wealth, what makes them stand out from others who tried to achieve that goal through various means is that they trusted in an innovation in democratic institutional design. Dissecting the relationship between democracy and equality of outcomes is far beyond the scope of this book, but democratic institutions should not be judged on their ability to realize substantive outcomes that are defined as desirable a priori to the democratic decision-making process. My interest is in democracy. Rather than ask what is decided, I want to know when citizens gain control over what is decided.

Influencing conditions

As explained, a robust medium-N QCA requires the theoretical skills to select and define a small number of explanatory conditions to be examined with the outcome condition I have conceptualized. The growing literature on PB outlined in Chapter 3 provides ample candidates for key conditions that could explain successful outcomes. A myriad of the conditions that are suggested to explain successes in deepening of democracy as a result of PB imply necessity and/or sufficiency. Plausible hypotheses include combinations of the fiscal independence of a polity, the governing ideology of the political leadership, the health of civil society, the quality of deliberation at meetings, the role of the bureaucracy, the degree of partisanship across the political spectrum, constitutional provisions for participatory governance, and more. With 31 cases the analysis needs to optimize the number of conditions we can examine across cases but also consider the limited diversity of social phenomena. Therefore, I consider four important conditions that have been considered key to explaining citizen control of budgetary decision-making in the literature, as outlined here.

The set of government leaders committed to a participatory governing philosophy (pl)

People who have power rarely give it away. Debates about the role of citizens in governance or the state have raged for centuries, and are

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the staple of much political philosophy. We standardly indoctrinate undergraduate students by exposing them to a canon that reads from Plato through Aristotle, Machiavelli, the modern social contract theorists and theorists of representation and laterally, the likes of Schumpeter, Pateman, Dahl and many more in between, to try to comprehend what the ideal role for the individual is in making collective decisions. In some cases those writings have inspired or guided revolution, but throughout history what has been rare is for a state or other locus of power to decide to give up that power without a fight. Even where leaders talk of decentralizing power, that talk is often met with cynicism, as very few of those talkers eventually 'walk the walk'. Yet it seems the cynicism would be misplaced considering some cases of PB. Why?

If there is one issue that unites concern among political scholars of many methodological and ideological hues, it is that we seem to be experiencing a legitimacy crisis in established representative democracies (Saward, 2010; Mair, 2013; Stoker, 2017). As explained in Chapter 1, what is most interesting about the participatory fora and innovative institutional designs that have emerged since the 1980s is that democratization in these instances is governance-driven (Warren, 2009). Studies in both Latin America and Europe (see especially Röcke, 2014) emphasize the importance of the leadership strategy in putting PB onto the agenda. The leadership strategy can significantly influence the model or rules of PB, and thereby its success in practice.

This condition connects concerns about the extent to which participation is ideologically central to governing parties, the degree of support for participation across the party and political spectrum, and the instrumental incentives for government to engage citizens in decision-making. Some of the field researchers I draw on have split those conditions and analysed them independently. I treat them as elements of a higher-order construct here. All those elements and others might be operationalized separately and then combined, but it is important to be clear that in my analysis I am primarily interested in the higher-order construct that takes all into account.

In some cases, commitment to participatory ideals can be signalled in the rhetoric of speeches and policy programmes promoted publicly. In the case of Poitou-Charentes, Ségelène Royal followed a fairly radical discourse in her defence of and promise for participatory democracy, at least prior to her selection as presidential candidate in 2006/07 (Röcke, 2014: 66–7). However, despite being influenced by the World Social Forum, it was also clear that Royal recognized the strategic benefits of participation, and tempered her rhetoric in national campaigns (Röcke, 2014: 24). Therefore, this condition

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considers commitment to participation across political society as a whole. High-set membership values on this condition are observed where leaders sustained participatory measures in the face of challenges from opposition leaders. We also observe the condition where challenges to PB programmes were not forthcoming because there was broad support across the political spectrum, and any challenges were not strongly made or publicized. A further important indicator is whether leaders actively attempted to improve the circumstances for participation. Although I understand financial security of a municipality and bureaucratic capacity themselves to be independent conditions, the effect on the outcome of ideological commitment to participation can be observed when leaders took political risks to try and channel funds and/or human resources or other state capital to advantage PB. One conjunctural hypothesis that can be tested is the expectation that all three of those conditions will be observed in combination where citizen control is present.

Bureaucratic support for participatory budgeting (bsp)

The inclusion of this condition recognizes a further source of the exercise of power that can act as a brake or catalyst for participatory reforms. Bureaucrats or other contracted officials play an important role in guaranteeing or negating the outcomes of policies. This role is conditioned by their physical capacities and competences to do the work (Lipsky, 1980). For example, the actions of officials both directly and indirectly mobilize or demobilize participants. In some cases bureaucrats exercised discretion in ways that benefited PB.

There are important differences across polities in the extent to which political leaders are able to restructure the administration (including the appointment of senior bureaucrats) to enable PB (Abers, 2000; Baiocchi, 2005). It is a little ironic that in some cases leaders were able to take advantage of the 'spoils systems' of patronage to reorganize bureaucracies such that key strategic positions as well as street-level ones were held by those who were committed to participation. As Abers points out in the case of Porto Alegre, two organizations, GAPLAN (a reorganized planning department) and CRC53 (community relations department) were initiated in this way in order to support PB (2000: 77–8). Bureaucrats were brought close to ordinary citizens, working with them towards common aims. In other cases, sympathetic bureaucrats may have been removed where leaders lost interest in participation. Rodgers gives a good account of such an occurrence in his description of the latter years of the Buenos Aires case (2010).

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Therefore, this condition considers the freedom that bureaucrats have to support PB as well as their intentions and actions.

In other cases, bureaucratic support varied where politicians had either little control or little influence over which staff were involved in the project and even what they did. Lerner and van Wagner (2006) suggest that in Toronto it was committed staff in the social housing sector having been made aware of PB through diffusion channels that bypassed politicians, who, recognizing they had the capacity to act, took it upon themselves to implement a PB process. Support also varied where such reorganization as had been taken on in South America was not possible at the municipal level. We can see, therefore, that this condition suggests a number of combinatorial hypotheses that may alternate in their effect on the outcome depending on the presence of other conditions. Another expectation I test is whether a combination of support from both politicians and bureaucrats is sufficient on its own to produce real democratic outcomes in a PB process, or alternatively, whether one without the other is sufficient across cases in conjunction with, for example, the work of civil society actors.

Autonomous civil society demands for participatory budgeting projects (csd)

Claims to the necessity of an active civil society for truly democratic outcomes in PB are common especially to much of the early literature in Brazil (see, especially, Wampler, 2007a; Avritzer, 2009; Baiocchi et al, 2011). Many PB scholars are sceptical of the ability of a participatory budget to become institutionalized and flourish where it is implemented only from the top down. There remains a tension within democratic theory between radical democrats and participatory institutionalists as to whether democratic deepening can emanate from the top down driven by governance imperatives (Smith, 2009; Warren, 2009), or whether that approach only reifies existing relations of dominance and pacifies the resistance to hegemony that is necessary for democracy. Both Baiocchi (2005) and Wampler (2007a) elaborate mechanisms whereby a vibrancy and activism within civil society can generate organized pressure for PB from the bottom up. In Porto Alegre, civil society activists lobbied successfully to not have the PB procedures enshrined legally precisely because they wanted the space to remain vibrant and contested. This early advantage may have become a liability when political support waned (Nuñez, 2018). So, is this bottom-up demand necessary for citizen control of PB outcomes, or are there alternative paths to that outcome?

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Data collected for this condition include details on whether civil society was able to make organized and consistently strong demands invoking their rights to participate as a source of legitimating democratic decisions. This condition considers not just demand, but also capacity of civil society within a municipality or region. It tries to capture information on the extent to which CSOs were able to organize independent of government across cases. We have already seen in Chapter 4 that across Brazilian cases it was CSOs' willingness and ability to use contentious politics to hold government to account on implementing PB projects that stood out for many scholars in ensuring the relative success of programmes. However, as we will see, I find less support for this hypothesis when looking across cases.

Financial basis to spend (fbs)

What spending freedom does the body organizing and implementing PB have, and is it steered or constrained by external forces beyond its control? Where diffusion has occurred across vastly different political units with different capacities and functions, the question of the degree of fiscal independence available to the instigators of participatory processes arises. The fourth and final condition I test assesses whether PB programmes have access to or can raise sufficient funds to administer the project and implement the outcomes of PB decisions. Where politicians, bureaucrats and/or civil society are committed to political reform, financial constraints may negate their ability to achieve their goals.

The participatory budgets in the dataset took place in different countries with different levels of decentralization and tax-raising powers among local governments and other subsidiary regulatory bodies. These bodies may also have different roles and freedoms with different welfare state models across the population of cases. In the early work on Brazilian cases, the fiscal autonomy of municipal mayors, including in particular their relative power to vary taxation, was frequently part of the explanation for successful implementation (Abers, 2000; Goldfrank, 2012). Onerous administrative burdens and a lack of investment can reduce participants' sense of efficiency of the process (Wampler et al, 2018: 18). However, formal powers do not tell the whole story here. In some cases, actors are constrained by historical or macro-economic problems; for example, in the Brazilian context Recife suffered from a lack of infrastructure and resources such that it struggled to implement infrastructure projects decided on by the budget (Wampler, 2007a; Montambeault, 2016). Where governments have to constantly commit funding to firefighting emergencies, they

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are likely to suffer more pressure to avoid rowing in with participatory decisions that are seen as risky, or they may simply be unable to fund the demands of citizens. In other cases, subsidiary bodies may have a relatively greater ability to negotiate changes in these circumstances. This condition was carefully calibrated to allow comparison across units of different size and competence.

Why favour these conditions over others?

What very few researchers on PB have yet come close to producing is a fully specified typological theory for any combination of conditions of interest. That is, very few writers discuss all of the logical combinations of their selected key conditions that influence or shape a participatory budget. I am confident that the four conditions selected represent the most significant causal claims made within the general literature on PB and reflect field knowledge from the cases included in the analysis. I also limit the analysis to four conditions to reduce logical remainders and provide transparent assumptions about counterfactuals as much as is possible for a medium-N study. There are many other conditions that were considered and that might be included in future iterations, or other studies that try to cumulate knowledge to explain successful participatory processes. Other candidates would include a measure of the size of jurisdiction of the government or agency administering the participatory budget, returning to an independent measure of the weakness of opposition, measuring relative poverty in a municipality, democratic performance, level of decentralization in design, presence or absence of other avenues for participation apart from the PB, rules on monitoring of projects, partisanship (left or right-leaning municipality or civil society) and variances in privileges of organized interests.

In at least three instances quite convincing arguments have been made in the case literature that suggest these variables play an important role in explaining PB cases, but either the data is currently unavailable across a range of cases, or conditions were not included to avoid the problem of limited diversity. First, Avritzer makes the case that in São Paulo, PB suffered because its decisions sometimes overlapped with decisions made in other power-sharing bodies such as health councils (2009: 100). Few scholars look systematically at the effect of other decision-making fora in a municipality on the success of PB, although some hint at it. This is an underexplored important hypothesis in participatory governance. Multiple participatory venues may induce confusion or allow venue shopping. Unfortunately, discussion of this phenomenon is not rich, and data on the way different bodies

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involved in governance work in practice is difficult to collect and verify without conducting many interviews with people on the ground. This condition may also be a good example of alternative causation – the existence of other participatory institutions may signal experiential learning of how to do participation ('schools of democracy') in municipalities, which increases the chances that PB will be successful.

Second, my construction of the participatory leadership condition considers support for participation across the political spectrum. An important finding for Goldfrank was that the participatory programme in Porto Alegre was more successful where opposition was weakly institutionalized vis-à-vis his other two cases, because 'community organisation in Caracas and Montevideo were linked to either the opposition or incumbent parties, and they did not push for power in the new participation programmes' (2012: 7). Nylen also considers partisanship within a municipality as an important barrier to PB's success (2003b), and Wampler similarly includes the condition of 'mayor–legislative relations' as central to his comparisons. Nylen shows that even in Betim, where the PT tried to reach out across political divides, the result was relatively unsuccessful.

Opposition and partisanship on their own may be important conditions that explain the success of PB. These conditions come close to satisfying data availability requirements across cases. It would not be difficult to construct a proxy measure by investigating the historical and contemporary strength of opposition parties in each municipality, which even without rich description of how this operates in practice could be powerful as a predictor of outcomes. Nevertheless, these conditions are not operationalized separately and considered in this analysis. Including a fifth condition overcomplicates and would induce further problems of limited diversity, and the four conditions I include are slightly more prevalent as explanations of outcomes across cases, especially outside South America. It is sometimes difficult to distinguish the separate effects of opposition, partisanship and participatory leadership in qualitative accounts as the leader can adapt messages to circumstances. This is why overall support for participation across political society is favoured in the calibration of the participatory leadership condition here. Essentially, I do not conduct a strong test for weakness of opposition, but include it as part of a higher-order construct. It is important to keep these factors in mind when interpreting the results of comparative analysis.

Third, and relatedly, some might argue that size of a municipality and/or overall levels of development or poverty could mediate results of PB. In particular, Pateman questions whether there is an appetite for participatory

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reform in wealthy established democracies (2012: 15). This is important, and such conditions could provide 'easy wins' in terms of data availability given the quantitative measures available. However, as before, these are not the key concerns in the literature and may be more appropriately looked at in a larger-N study. In the end we have to cut our cloth to suit our means. Avenues for expanding this analysis as a mode of cumulation to enable an enlarged research agenda are discussed in Chapter 9.

A note on comparison and time

The final important factor in casing and hypothesis formation is time – it is important to be clear about the time range for each case. PB is still an evolving phenomenon. The earliest cases began in 1989. The cases in the dataset generally represent older, more established cases of PB (at least where they have remained established). They are cases that were selected by researchers for in-depth investigation because they recognized their analytic value. In this dataset the time range for each case is set by the source material. On the whole they provide enough information for a robust comparison, and we may want to make some modest generalizations from our findings in the direction of many younger cases for which information is emerging (see Dias, 2018). Some accounts cover 15 years of a practice and in others the accounts may cover as little as 3 years of a PB programme.

We saw in Chapter 4 that Wampler highlights differences in the case of Porto Alegre over time. Baierle (2008) considers PB to be a very different beast after the 2004 elections, which left the city without a PT mayor. We might also note that in Recife, for example, PB has been governed by a number of different mayors from different parties over the years. Not only might there be both adverse and positive effects of change, but continuity may also affect PB, either positively or negatively. For instance, it might be argued that participatory learning takes place over time, allowing improvements in outcomes.

A recurring criticism of QCA is that it is too static. In a case study, researchers can trace a process, providing a mechanistic definition of causation where time and sequence are important conditions influencing outcomes. However, QCA has little to say about the difference in time between conditions observed in cases. Its analytical moment focuses on conjunction and disjunction. There have been some suggestions for remedying this. A time-sensitive variant of QCA (temporal qualitative comparative analysis or TQCA), as developed by Caren and Panofsky (2005), and later by Ragin and Strand (2008), introduces a sequence as a causal condition in the analysis. In the case of PB, for example,

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we might have a hypothesis that when strong bureaucratic capacity precedes a participatory governing party coming to power, citizen power in PB is difficult to achieve because the bureaucracy is strong enough to resist change. However, when a participatory governing party improves weak bureaucratic capacity, it may be able to inculcate the government ideology, and bureaucratic capacity may combine with political commitments to produce good PB programmes. TQCA is useful as it allows a test for the outcome produced when one cause precedes another, and vice versa. The sequence can then be an important part of the causal combination explaining an outcome. However, there is a pitfall in that we are adding a condition, and thus increasing limits to diversity of logical case examples.

Other work has sought to improve the treatment of time in QCA by including elements of other methods (for example, time-series QCA; see Hino, 2009). There has been renewed attention to the issue among methodologists more recently. However, QCA is still unfortunately rather unable to provide sophisticated understandings of causation that trace process and feedback. This might be seen to be a problem for the research of young, burgeoning phenomena such as democratic innovations where it is often still unclear what direction causality is taking between conditions themselves and conditions and outcomes. As I show in the analysis presented in the next three chapters of Part III, I learned that the static comparison can be a strength, especially once seen as part of a symbiotic relationship with case knowledge in a process of cumulation. Looking at what conditions consistently occur in combinations can force a researcher to re-problematize 'accepted' sequential inferences. Nevertheless, it also serves to reinforce the point that cross-case comparison cannot replicate or replace within-case methods and requires the complement. In any case, using QCA we can return to the cases with these considerations in mind to assess whether we are missing a crucial condition from the explanation and an alternative reading of individual cases is desirable. I elaborate on these in my interpretation of outcomes. I now go on to discuss the process of calibration that decides how membership values in sets are assigned.

Conceptualization and calibration: fuzzy logic meets participatory democracy

Lamentations over social scientists' inability to conceptualize and measure phenomena discretely are not new. Sartori's words retain pertinence:

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> The incessant use of 'it is a matter of degree' phraseology and of the 'continuum' image leave us with qualitative-impressionistic statements which do not advance us by a hair's breadth toward quantification. In a similar vein we speak more and more of 'variables' which are not variables in any proper sense, for they are not attributes permitting gradations and implying measurability. (Sartori, 1970: 1036)

Case-based comparative approaches assume that there is an extent to which complex phenomena can be observed and described in terms of both their elemental qualities and quantitative variations of the presence of these qualities. Descriptions when compared to idealizations and to other cases using the insights of theory can be usefully measured and mapped in terms of their set membership across cases. This lends itself to some new analytic techniques, in particular, the use of Boolean algebraic operations and fuzzy logic, to provide parsimonious descriptions of causal relationships.

Retaining some further acumens of case-based reasoning, QCA generally employs information-oriented sampling. That is to say, the case selection outlined previously is based mostly on what we know about the cases and what we know about other potential cases rather than a randomized process. Set membership of a condition is distinguished from measures of traditional variables in statistical analysis by having a meaningful maximum and minimum for set membership. Where a phenomenon is observed in a case, the case can be said to be a member of the set of that phenomenon. Cases can have different degrees of membership in a set depending on the degree to which the condition is observed. This allows comparative researchers to describe degrees of variation. Fuzzy sets are, in some ways, simply an expansion in sophistication of a crisp dichotomization where a value of 1 indicates full membership in a set and 0 full non-membership. Each case will still display a membership score either side of the crossover point (0.5), which represents maximum ambiguity between whether a case is more in the set or more out (Ragin, 2000).

Figure 5.1 reproduces an example that will be familiar to many engaged with participatory theory, and which I found useful for explaining the concept for those unfamiliar with it. Arnstein developed her well-known theoretical model of a 'ladder of participation' in critically observing efforts to include under-represented populations in policymaking in the US (1969). At one level the ladder image suggests each rung has a similar meaningful interval and interval data is an appropriate level of measurement to those interested in using the theory

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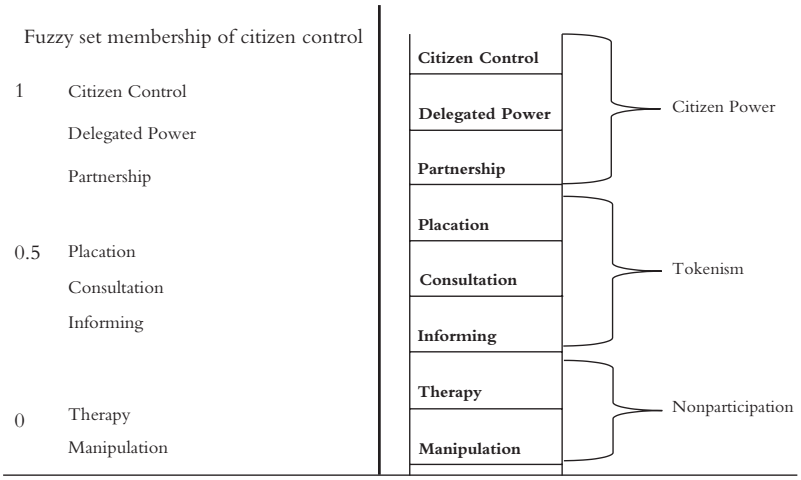
Figure 5.1: Mapping a fuzzy set based on Arnstein's 'ladder of participation' (1969)



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in real world evaluation. Nevertheless, Arnstein makes important qualitative distinctions, especially between the three rungs that more represent citizen power and the other levels in Figure 5.1. This shows how the theory can be used to construct a fuzzy set to measure the concept of citizen control of decision-making, including differences of quality and quantity. Cases that display full citizen control have full membership of the set, manipulatory designs are located fully out of the set, but cases ranging up from consultation through partnership display partial membership in the set in relation to one another.

Fuzzy sets were adapted to the social sciences by Smithson (1988) and Ragin (2000). They were previously developed for use in computer sciences by Zadeh (1965). They give us the opportunity to connect theory and measurement in a constructive manner, as the example of the ladder of participation in Figure 5.1 shows. As Ragin puts it, we connect formal and verbal logic (2000: 160). A condition set is formulated by clearly defining full membership, full non-membership and other degrees of membership. In Ragin's words, 'fuzzy logic offers a mathematical system that makes allowances for the pliable nature of verbal concepts' (2000: 160). It is important to note that calibrated set scores are not a ranking. Each score is 'pinpointing a qualitative state' (Ragin, 2009: 90) that can be verbally described.

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Dichotomization is only problematic where it is a byword for unreflective data processing. It can be a distinct advantage for conceptual clarification to require that research defines what constitutes the presence or absence of a phenomenon for a given study rather than sit comfortably on indeterminacy. Fuzzy sets do not allow for indeterminacy unless their users get away with obfuscation in presenting to the untrained eye. Fuzzy logic should not be relied on to help unscrupulous scholars descend into relativism. Crisp sets (where only membership scores of 1 or 0 are allowed) can be useful for theory-building and case selection in thinking through logical contradictions (where two cases appear to contain the same configuration of relevant causes but a different outcome[1]) in a property space of cases.

There are different approaches to calibration, and the approach taken for calibrating each set will depend on the nature of data and the confidence in being accurately able to attribute qualitative changes in states to recognize different levels of set membership. My analysis relies on calibration of qualitative data rather than using a quantitative proxy and directly calibrating a set using mathematical transformations. The latter method has become popular as large-N research is undertaken using QCA. For example, one could calibrate the set of a large or small municipality by specifying the three qualitative breakpoints or full membership, non-membership and the crossover point for city populations, and then use a mathematical transformation to quickly ascribe set memberships to a large number of cities based on that quantitative data.[2]

In contrast, the method of calibration I employ, straightforward in terms of understanding and conceptual clarity but not application, involves drawing candidly on rich descriptions in existing casework. Cases are ascribed fuzzy membership values in the sets 'by hand' (membership in each set represents the observed degree of presence of a condition). In my analysis, the following 7-value fuzzy set, as proposed by Ragin (2000: 156), is used.

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1 For an applied discussion, see Olsen and Nomura (2009).

2 Ragin suggests estimates of log odds (2008: 87). There are other functional forms that can be used, but the effect of changes of functional transformation mechanisms, while measurable, remains marginal in most scenarios – it is the qualitative definition of breakpoints that matters substantively (Schneider and Wagemann, 2012: 37). Schneider and Wagemann also point to an important critique in this approach to calibration, in that it leads to 'very fine-grained fuzzy scales, thus suggesting a level of precision that usually goes well beyond the available empirical information and the conceptual level of differentiation that is possible' (2012: 37).

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1.0	Fully in (the set)
0.83	Mostly but not fully in
0.67	More or less in
0.5	Crossover point
0.33	More or less out
0.17	Mostly but not fully out
0	Fully out

Calibrating and coding cases is an informative, inductive process. There is constant interplay here between case knowledge and theoretical understanding. On engaging in iterations of calibration it became clear that this 7-value set was an appropriate level of nuance in measurement, given the data available. To understand the iteration involved, take the example of the set of government leaders committed to a participatory governing philosophy, shortened here to 'participatory leadership'. I might have started off with the following conceptualization: full membership in this set is observed where the instigator or overseer of PB is ideologically committed to participatory politics and to implementing PB.[3] Full non-membership is where the instigator or overseer of PB is not ideologically committed to participatory politics AND[4] is actively trying to derail or revoke participatory practices. We have a number of cases that we know lie somewhere in between these points – when does a case look more like a committed participatory leader, and when does it look more like an uncommitted one? I might start by saying that the point of maximum ambiguity (or crossover point) is represented when the instigator or overseer of PB is committed to participatory politics only to the extent that it fits in with other ideological or material goals; and support for PB is present but limited and extremely fragmented across the governing ranks. Cases closer to the maximum from this point are more in, and cases closer to the

[3] The following short section draws heavily on Ryan and Smith (2012: 104–5). The research presented in the book updates that pilot study. The conceptualizations of conditions remain relatively similar, as cases have been added allowing some comparisons with that work, although I have abandoned the use of some less determinate measures.

[4] When I use 'AND; OR' in capitals I am invoking the logic of intersection and union of sets respectively. Conjunctions (corresponding to the intersection of sets) and disjunctions (union) are arithmetically calculated using minimum and maximum functions to ascertain their set membership values. The procedure is explained further when I present analysis in the next chapter.

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minimum are more out of the set. I can then evaluate gradations of 'more in' or 'more out' where appropriate, given knowledge of cases and data available, and refine definitions of the concept.

Porto Alegre achieves a fuzzy membership of 1 in this set, as PB was the flagship of an explicit participatory philosophy of the instigating party. The PT proposed a programme specifically designed to involve lower socioeconomic groups in public policymaking venues to give CSOs an input into making the rules of PB, and to increase budget transparency. In comparison, we know that in Berlin the mayor is committed to participation at district level, but there is a question as to whether this justifies similar membership given that the district mayor is not the only driving force in such a federal system (Röcke, 2014). In Buenos Aires there was brief enthusiasm from those in power, but this was linked to the political opportunity structure and the contingent circumstances of the Argentine economy rather than just participatory ideals (Peruzzotti, 2009; Rodgers, 2010). Can we measure these cases using the measurement device we have constructed?

For the purpose of improving measurement and descriptions of concepts, I found it useful to visualize the cases on what I term 'fuzzy maps' (see Figure 5.2). I could then add and subtract information or move cases to obtain the best reflection of conceptual theory and observations.

The interaction between the graphical representation and the membership statements helps in the direction of confident judgements that the numerical values we ascribe cases make sense. The conception can change both in relation to the verbal definitions of key breakpoints in set membership and more tacit knowledge of the cases themselves and how they relate. Interplay then takes place where the researcher must refine the definitions of the contours of the set in light of information thrown up by the cases as coding takes place. Where cases known to have important differences on the degree to which they display the condition are found to have proximate fuzzy membership scores, this may signal a need to consider redefining membership. In this example, I can add the caveat that for full membership the instigator or overseer of PB is ideologically committed to participatory politics AND to implementing PB, AND is willing to take risky political decisions to uphold this commitment. I can then recode cases like Berlin and Buenos Aires with perhaps lower set memberships accordingly. What is sought is that the definitions of membership values will eventually make sense such that membership in the set is clearly calibrated to the theoretical meaning of the condition we wish to test.

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Figure 5.2: Example of a fuzzy map to help calibrate participatory leadership

Participatory Leadership Strategy

1	Porto Alegre, Poitou-Charentes, New York Ipatinga,Camaragibe Rome, Lambayeque Morsang Recife(ii),Gravataí João Monlevade, Santo André Montevideo, Chicago Sevilla, Betim, Berlin, Belo	Code: 1 = The instigator/overseer of PB is ideologically committed to participatory politics and implementing PB. They are willing to take risky decisions and can build or manoeuvre support across the political spectrum.
0.5	Cusco, Moquegua Córdoba São Paulo, Cajamarca Recife(i) Mauá Buenos Aires	0.5 = The instigator/overseer of PB is committed to participatory politics only to the extent that it fits with other policy goals and support is fragmented across political society in a way that makes ongoing support for the PB precarious.
0	Ayacucho, Loreto Blumenau, Rio Claro Toronto	0 = The instigator/overseer of PB has little interest or is actively hostile to the PB and/or participatory politics. The PB is taking place in spite of the leadership.

More recently I found that these fuzzy maps and similarly truth tables are particularly useful for guiding discussions with researchers in attempting to clarify the conditions of particular cases with which they are familiar. These relatively simple tools hold particular

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promise for aiding cumulation of knowledge from small-N case research, potentially using them in expert surveys, as more in-depth cumulation is cultivated. No researcher can have knowledge of all cases that exist, but they will have varying partial knowledge of some cases outside of their own field research. Most researchers who work on PB are au fait with the history and nuances of the Porto Alegre case, which provides an anchor for comparisons. By looking at the cases for which they have degrees of knowledge in relation to one another and in relation to an operationalization of a concept itself, researchers can engage in a dialogue with other researchers, bringing together theory and comparative knowledge at once. Colleagues can be stimulated to provide further information to help improve and refine definitions that delineate conditions, and where they think there are errors with coding, they can make arguments for change. I was worried initially that case researchers might react guardedly to my calibrations, but I need not have been (so far, at least). In almost all cases colleagues have seen an opportunity for their research to be extended in an important way. On occasion field researchers contacted me unprompted to recommend changes, and I am sure they may do so again.[5]

This process of calibration highlights the extent to which iteration is central in seeking both theoretical clarity and robust measurement for comparison of PB. Despite, and to some extent because of, the dispersion and variability of cases, measures can still be constructed that are comparable across cases and conditions. This, as I presently show, allows the use of Boolean algebraic operations to uncover relationships of necessity and sufficiency between conditions and outcomes across cases. As new cases are added, we are often forced into reassessing the nature of membership for particular sets. This is nothing new in the sense that scholars have for years been looking at how concepts travel and can be meaningfully quantified across contexts. Nevertheless, by allowing these considerations at the level of medium-N, QCA seems to provide an alternative location for robust research along the spectrum of trade-offs between complexity and generalizability in social and political research.

[5] Of course, there may be sample bias here. Colleagues who think your work is complete rubbish can be too polite to say so if they think issues are insignificant, or do not think it worth their engagement! Greater input and collaboration have allowed improvements in accuracy of interpretations. Nevertheless, it is important to note that texts remain the primary source on which I rely.

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A fuzzy set analysis of 30 cases

In the final analysis provided in the following chapters, sets have been calibrated according to the criteria outlined in this section. Full membership in the set of government leaders committed to a participatory governing philosophy (abbreviated to 'pl') requires that the leaders initiating the PB have committed to participation in manifestos and speeches AND that their commitment is not reduced in bargaining with non-committed parties. Leaders make decisions to support participatory projects irrespective of other political actors OR supported by them. Full non-membership requires that the instigator or overseer of PB is not ideologically committed to participatory politics; shows little interest in participation; OR is actively trying to derail or revoke participatory practices. At the crossover point the instigator or overseer of PB is ideologically committed to participatory politics only to the extent that it fits with other policy goals AND support is fragmented across political society in a way that makes support for PB precarious and political actors unwilling to take risks for the PB.

Full membership of the set of bureaucratic support for PB (bsp) requires that officials working for the governors actively support and engage with participatory processes AND those staff obstructing advances in participation are easily removed. Full non-membership is observed where officials actively attempt to derail the process, lobby for reform towards other practices and concentrate resources on other projects. At the point of maximum ambiguity bureaucratic support for participation is fragmented. Some departments may support participation while others oppose it. There is contestation over programmes within the bureaucracy, and support is contingent on important bureaucratic leaders' abilities to remain in position.

Full membership in the set of autonomous civil society demands for PB (csd) requires that civil society is dynamic and differentiated in involvement with the process AND CSOs are actively making demands for participation and projects AND are willing to use multiple resources and tactics to secure their demands, building coalitions for cooperative and contentious politics. Full non-membership denotes absence of civil society activism – often described as frail, fragile and fragmented OR an active civil society that is tied to more traditional relations between government and the public sphere within the local political culture. There is no prospect for new and diverse CSOs to get involved in the process, and low trust in alliances. At the point of maximum ambiguity there is some demand to allow civil society an

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ever-greater role in the governance of budgets, but the institutional designs that civil society are mobilizing for or into are not necessarily open participatory ones OR civil society is extremely fragmented and partisan mobilization is increasing rather than reducing, mirrored in disjointed support for PB.

Full membership in the set of financial basis for spending (fbs) requires that the government unit undertaking PB has independent control over substantial sums of money in relative terms to other such units of governance in their country. There is no interference from other tiers of government or authorities in the spending of the relevant budget AND the municipality is not overwhelmed by debt or other pressing financial concerns. Full non-membership is observed where funds made available for PB are paltry. This may be because the governing unit is overwhelmed by debt or unable to raise any funds, for example, through tax, charges or sales of assets. At the crossover point some money is available for PB processes and projects, but spending is constrained by decisions taken elsewhere OR PB competes for funds with closely related projects or institutions.

In the following chapters I analyse case membership in these four sets in relation to their membership in the outcome set: the set of citizen control of participatory budgeting (ccpb). Full membership of the outcome set requires a logical combination of sustained control over decision-making AND control over agenda-setting, including absence of co-optation in practice, and opportunities for monitoring and accountability. Full non-membership denotes clear co-optation and a return to clientelism, leading to disappointment and participation fatigue among citizens. The agenda for participatory decisions is set elsewhere, and decisions of the PB are only acted on where they suit governments. At the crossover point, important PB decisions are sometimes implemented, even when they are not clearly in line with government aims, but this takes place on a seemingly ad hoc basis – perhaps agendas are constrained at government level. Cases more in the set see successes, but with citizens having to struggle regularly (for example, by protesting) in order to see decisions implemented and to hold governments to account. Cases more out see some gains, but not enough to suggest even partial or temporal transformations of the logics of authority.

Settling on the descriptions of conditions and set memberships took several iterations to take into account different levels of information across cases, valid levels of abstraction for a comparison of the cases to take place, and negotiating and understanding some rival accounts of some cases. All cases were coded on the basis of

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the criteria previously outlined. The following data matrix (see Table 5.1) was finally produced, showing the cases' set memberships in these calibrated sets.

On presenting the data I make two important reflections before moving to present my analysis. It was noticeable in coding cases and calibrating conditions across a number of separate investigations that the study of innovative practices as they emerge exacerbates some challenges for comparison. First, Chapters 2 and 3 traced the development of PB case studies. It is now well accepted that research on participatory governance has focused too much on best cases (Spada and Ryan, 2017; Smith, 2019). The assumption implicit in much research in the field is that the true distribution of participatory governance and PB is skewed. There is assumed to be a long tail of desultory practices or a bunch of extremely positive outliers. Many of the most influential writers in the field find the touchstone for their investigations in ideal theory – they are studying 'real utopias' (Fung and Wright, 2003).

I am certainly not out to criticize that. What attracted most colleagues and myself to the field is a normative commitment to improving (or defending) democracy, so that is where my sympathies lie. Often, however, we may be too quick to dismiss 'mere consultation' than investigate properly its forms and outputs.[6] We should be mindful of the bias presented by the tension between normative commitments of democracy promotion and the reduction of normative commitments required for certain kinds of explanation. It is a useful tension to explore, but it is far from resolved in the subfield (Spada and Ryan, 2017), and is an issue for the discipline as a whole to keep under consideration in its vocational commitments (Keohane, 2009). Over-romanticizing the effects of participatory practices like PB is unlikely to be helpful (Nylen, 2003a: 149). The challenge is not to valorize certain cases too much – the lessons of Porto Alegre can remain inspirational even when some of the reality of its problems are treated in retrospect, with the benefit of hindsight. But we should also consider that conceptualizations and measures of participatory governance that may appear to be more normally distributed, can be useful for understanding democratic participation, if the relationship between the concept and the measure is clear. If we focus only on the variation at one end of the distribution of efforts in participation, we are missing a lot.

[6] Baiocchi et al make a similar point in their comparison of Brazilian municipalities (2011: 77).

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Table 5.1: Data matrix of fuzzy memberships in conditions

Case	Participatory leadership (pl)	Autonomous civil society demand (csd)	Bureaucratic support (bsp)	Financial basis to spend (fbs)	Citizen control of PB (ccpb)
Ayacucho	0	0.33	0	0.17	0
Belo Horizonte	0.83	1	0.33	1	0.83
Berlin-Lichtenberg	0.83	0.17	0.17	0.17	0.33
Betim	0.83	0.33	0.67	0.67	0.33
Blumenau	0	0.17	0	0.83	0
Buenos Aires	0.17	0.33	1	0	0.33
Cajamarca	0.33	0.67	0.67	0.33	0.17
Camaragibe	1	0.33	0.67	0.17	0.67
Chicago 49th Ward	0.83	0.83	0	0.67	0.17
Córdoba	0.67	0.83	0	0.67	0.17
Cusco	0.67	1	0.67	0.33	1
Gravataí	0.83	0.33	1	0.83	0.83
Ipatinga	1	0.33	0.83	1	1
João Monlevade	0.83	0.67	0.83	0.83	0.67
Lambayeque	1	0.33	1	0.17	1
Loreto	0	0.17	0.17	0.33	0
Mauá	0.33	0.33	0	0.17	0.17
Montevideo	0.83	0.33	0.17	0.83	0.33
Moquegua	0.67	0.67	0.33	0.33	0.33
Morsang-sur-Orge	1	0.17	0.67	0	0.17
New York	1	0.83	0.33	0.83	0.83
Poitou-Charentes	1	0	0.17	1	0.83
Porto Alegre	1	1	1	1	1
Recife (i)	0.33	0.67	0.33	0.17	0.33
Recife (ii)	0.83	1	0.67	0.17	1
Rio Claro	0	0	0	0.83	0
Rome	1	0.67	0.33	0.33	0.67

(continued)

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Table 5.1: Data matrix of fuzzy memberships in conditions (continued)

Case	Participatory leadership (pl)	Autonomous civil society demand (csd)	Bureaucratic support (bsp)	Financial basis to spend (fbs)	Citizen control of PB (ccpb)
Santo André	0.83	0.67	0.33	0.17	0.33
São Paulo	0.33	1	0.17	0.17	0.33
Sevilla	0.83	0.33	0.33	0.83	0.67
Toronto	0	0.17	0.33	0.17	0.33

Second, and relatedly, researchers engaged in small-N research necessarily have to spend a lot of time explaining assumed controls and variance of their case in relation to others. That is, how they justify their case selection and inferences they make beyond their case(s). I would be among the first to defend the robustness of those procedures (Ryan, 2017). In comparing across cases I had to be mindful of how variance is presented by different scholars (again, an advantage of cumulation is that I can take this into account). For instance, a rough and ready coding combined with a focus on maximum variation in several comparative studies could trick the secondary researcher into dichotomizing values to produce set scores with a highly negative kurtosis, thereby losing some nuance. Alternatively, a focus on controls, or simply a lack of data allowing conviction in decisions on presence or absence of conditions, can incentive the opposite – reliance on several mid-range values. The point of measurement is, of course, to accurately reflect the real world and the underlying concept as much as possible, and not to force-fit the world into a distribution that is easier to analyse. I use the image of a probability distribution here simply to show that the inclusion of a larger range of cases provides more specific information in helping us consider how our concepts reflect the real world.

In practice, fuzzy sets offer some advance for measurement by specifying three important qualitative points that will structure the distribution of cases. For the outcome I calibrate in Table 5.1, non-membership will identify irrelevant variation among the least democratic cases. Despite variation among cases coded 0, no case that scores 0 can be considered in any way to advance citizens' power. But also, at the top of the scale, full membership will identify irrelevant variation beyond a certain point where citizen control of decisions is perceptible. One case may achieve more democratic control than another. But when full membership of the set is conceived of as an ideal, and we are only measuring membership as an ideal(istic) type,

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that quality of having actually achieved citizen control of democratic decisions is not allowed for in empirical measurements. So, there may be two cases receiving a score of 1 that have variation above that level of success that is not considered. Despite my efforts, some may assess the matrix of set memberships in Figure 5.1 and find elements of the coding satisfactory but others objectionable. I can only hope that this will lead them to offer improvements, and in doing so we can build up the reliability of our collective understanding of the phenomenon. I discuss cases not included (and later time periods in the cases selected not covered by the data), as well as some issues of interpretation used to assign memberships to cases, at greater length in the course of presenting my analysis and results in the following chapters.

To the analytic moments (with a return ticket)

In summary, there are multiple (and potentially overlapping) conditions that are conceptualized and operationalized by field researchers and employed in different ways to explain PB outcomes. Beyond negotiating the causal milieu, although most researchers are interested in explaining a 'success' outcome, broadly understood as empowered participatory democracy, different emphases are placed on redistributive justice, changes in the role of civil society and transparency in governance. Definition and careful scoping of research is crucial for accurate measurement and to lessen the impacts of 'travelling' problems in conceptual measurement. The advance of a QCA fully worked through, presented as it is here, is that it allows a transparent evaluation of the level of precision available in cumulating case research.

It is nothing new for researchers to have to explain their own understandings of key concepts and to operationalize them. What is new is the potential for cumulation in this approach. We should remember that the challenge for the social scientist is to provide parsimonious explanations of the real world and to make the correct choices as to what elements of that explanation are essential. The question is, are we using the right tools to do this, and what do they tell us about the substantive outcomes of participatory processes? The following chapters in Part III provide the answers to these questions.

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